

Linear Programming of Graph Squares

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Submitted for the degree of Master of Science:
Mathematics and Statistics

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August 13, 2026

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Chapter 1

Introduction

1.1 Historical Background

In 1949, Leon Festinger proposed a novel method in the field of social psychology for analyzing relationships among a number of people present [FBB23]. Classically this was represented using a sociogram, a visual tool that maps out the relationships between people, however Forsyth and Katz introduced the use of a matrix to represent the sociometric pattern, with rows and columns being individuals and containing 1s for choices and blank diagonals. Festinger noticed that the action of squaring a matrix

$$A_{rc}^2 = A_{1c}A_{r1} + \cdots + A_{nc}A_{rn}$$

represented the number of “two-step” connections, which can then be used to denote “three-step” connections between any two people

$$A_{rc}^3 = A_{1c}A_{r1}^2 + \cdots + A_{nc}A_{rn}^2,$$

such that higher steps can be easily generated. In this manner, higher powers of the adjacency matrix encode the number of walks of increasing length between pairs of individuals, allowing densely connected groups of people, known as cliques, to be identified. In particular, cliques between any three individuals can be done by looking at the diagonals of the cubed matrix A^3 .

This matrix A can be considered as a form of an adjacency matrix, and in the process of improving clique detection methods, Ross and Harary showed that complete graphs may be realized as squares of star trees by considering powers of such matrices [RH60]. They introduced a structural characterization of the square of a graph in terms of clique intersections, “multicliquial” vertices, and so called “neighborly” properties, proving that a graph is the square of a tree if and only if

- i) every vertex is “neighborly” - is not isolated,
- ii) no two cliques intersect in more than two vertices, and
- iii) the number of clique pairs intersecting in two vertices is exactly one less than the total number of cliques.

¹ A_{rc}^2 is more naturally written as $\sum_{k=1}^n A_{ck}A_{kr}$ using the commutativity of multiplication $A_{1c}A_{r1} = A_{c1}A_{1r}$, which intuitively gives the notion of paths from c to r via intermediary k

² A_{rc}^3 is more naturally written as $\sum_{k=1}^n A_{ck}A_{kr}^2$, which intuitively counts the number of paths from c to r that go through an intermediate vertex k , followed by any two-step path from k to r .

Using these properties, they constructed an explicit algorithm that recovers the underlying tree for a given square graph, and their seminal paper has become the foundational reference for the study of graph squares and is universally cited in subsequent literature on the subject.

Since then, the problem of finding the square root of a graph has extended beyond sociology and is a well-studied field in both mathematics and computer-science, with direct applications in distributed computing (e.g., see [PA23]), network design and computational biology. This is in part because many structural properties of graph roots are first established in the square case before being extended to the more general k -th power setting (e.g., see [HKT67]).

Research in this area has primarily focused around an undirected graph H and its square $G = H^2$ which is obtained by adding an edge between every pair of vertices whose distance in H is at most two. This two-step undirected graph square has been studied extensively with much of the focus being on the complexity of the decision problem - given a specific square graph G does there exist a root graph H such that $H^2 = G$. Motwani and Sudan showed that graph squares are NP-complete in general and hence subsequent studies in the area have restricted the decision problem in two ways, either by considering various properties on the root graph or by considering properties on the square graph.

1.2 Aims

In contrast, rather than studying the construction problem directly, in this work we analyze the relationship between the adjacency matrix A_H of the root and the adjacency matrix A_G of the square, and show that the problem can be completely categorized as an integer program. We then examine the relaxed linear program which can be evaluated in polynomial time using interior point method and show that by adding additional constraints, the linear program can completely classify all tree roots.

We begin by introducing the comprehensive literature surrounding the subject and provide a general overview of the research direction in this area and the major advances that have been made over the years. We then standardize the definitions that will be used for the rest of this thesis and introduce fundamental theory on the three areas of complexity theory, graph theory and mathematical optimization that are used in the various algorithmic approaches to the decision problem.

The first algorithm we explore is the polynomial time algorithm given by Ross and Harary for constructing a tree root from a given square. We then explore the proof used by Motwani and Sudan in showing that the decision problem determining whether a given graph G admits a square root—is NP-complete in general [MS94]. Before introducing the corresponding integer program and the relaxed

1.3 Literature

Focusing first on special undirected graph classes, the aforementioned work by Ross and Harary in 1960 gives an algorithm for constructing a tree root by using characterizations of the square graph. As part of this work they proved tree square roots are unique up to isomorphism. This was the first major contribution to the study of graph roots and provided fundamental structural characteristics of square graphs, laying the groundwork for later research on graph root problems and their applications [RH60].

Fleischner in 1974 showed that as long as a graph is 2-connected its square graph will have a Hamiltonian cycle. This established a broad condition guaranteeing Hamiltonicity in graph squares

which is used in many subsequent works [Fle74].

Lau and Corneil in 2004 provided an algorithm for constructing square roots from an interval square graph in polynomial time, and showed that the decision problem for finding roots of chordal graphs, roots of split graphs, and chordal roots of graphs are NP-complete [LC04]. Furthermore, Lau considered the construction of square roots from a bipartite graph in linear time, and showed that the existence of cube roots in bipartite square is NP-complete [Lau06].

Le and Tuy in 2007 generalized tree-root results further by giving a linear time recognition of roots of block graphs [LT07].

Extending to the broader generalizing of graph squares, Mukhopadhyay in 1967 provided necessary and sufficient conditions for a connected graph to have a generalized square root [Muk67], whilst Geller in 1970 likewise found necessary and sufficient conditions for a digraph to have a square root [Gel70].

In 1994 Motwani and Sudan established the complexity of the square problem for the generalized undirected case and showed that the problem of determining if a given graph has a square root is a NP-complete problem via a polynomial reduction to 3-CNF Not-All-Equal SAT [MS94].

Their work led to joint work by Farzad, Le, Tuy, Lau and Karimi in 2009 and 2012, in which they established a partial dichotomy theorem for the complexity of determining if a given undirected graph of girth n has a square root [Far+09] which was informally completed under [FK12]. In 2013, Cochefert and others gave an algorithm for constructing a square root with minimal number of edges from undirected graphs with max degree ≤ 6 in polynomial time and an algorithm for constructing maximal edge square roots in exponential time [Coc+13].

In recent years, Duffy provided a full classification for the undirected square of oriented graphs satisfying max degree ≤ 3 and girth ≥ 4 [Duf25].

1.4 Definitions

1.4.1 Complexity Theory

Complexity theory studies the classification of computational problems and explores the amount of resources required to solve certain problems. The critical resource that is measured is running time and is standardized across various different problems by using

Definition 1.4.1 (Big- O Notation). *Let $f, g : \mathbb{N} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}_{\geq 0}$. The **Big- O Notation** $f(n) = O(g(n))$ is written if there exist constants $c > 0$ and $n_0 \in \mathbb{N}$ such that for all $n \geq n_0$*

$$f(n) \leq cg(n).$$

Using this notation, we can classify algorithms based on their runtime.

Definition 1.4.2 (Polynomial-Time Algorithm). *An algorithm is said to run in **polynomial time** if there exists a constant $c \geq 0$ such that its run time on inputs of size n is $O(n^c)$.*

Polynomial-time algorithms are important because they are generally regarded as efficient and computationally “simple”. Consequently, the class of problems that admit polynomial-time algorithms forms the basis for the complexity class **P**.

Definition 1.4.3 (Decision Problem). *A **decision problem** is a computational problem whose output is either **Yes** or **No** for every valid input instance.*

Definition 1.4.4 (Class **P**). *The complexity class **P** consists of all decision problems that can be solved by a deterministic algorithm in polynomial time.*

Unfortunately many important decision problems are not known to admit such polynomial-time algorithms and hence need additional classification on their “hardness”. For these problems, despite not have an efficient algorithm for finding a solution, a proposed solution can be verified efficiently.

Definition 1.4.5 (Certificate). *Let L be a decision problem. A **certificate** for an instance x of L is a finite string c that provides evidence that x is a **Yes-instance** of L . A certificate is said to be **polynomially verifiable** if there exists a deterministic algorithm that for given input (x, c) , can determine whether c is a valid certificate for x in time polynomial in $|x|$.*

Definition 1.4.6 (Class **NP**). *The complexity class **NP** consists of all decision problems for which every **Yes-instance** admits a certificate that is polynomially verifiable.*

Since every decision problem in **P** can be solved in polynomial time, a solution can also be verified in polynomial time,

$$\mathbf{P} \subseteq \mathbf{NP}.$$

Whether this inclusion is strict remains one of the most important open questions in theoretical computer science - the **P** vs **NP** problem. As **NP** is a large space, the relative difficulty of problems in **NP** is compared by using reduction.

Definition 1.4.7 (Polynomial-Time Reduction). *Let A and B be decision problems. A **polynomial-time reduction** from A to B , denoted $A \leq_p B$, is a polynomial-time computable function f such that, for every instance x of A ,*

$$x \in A \iff f(x) \in B.$$

Definition 1.4.8 (Class **NP-Hard**). *A decision problem B is **NP-hard** if every problem $A \in \mathbf{NP}$ satisfies $A \leq_p B$. The collection of all **NP-hard** problems is denoted by the class **NP-hard**.*

Definition 1.4.9 (Class **NP-Complete**). *A decision problem B is **NP-complete** if $B \in \mathbf{NP}$, and B is **NP-hard**. The collection of all **NP-complete** problems is denoted by the class **NP-complete**.*

1.4.2 Graph Theory

Definition 1.4.10 (Graph).

Definition 1.4.11 (Undirected Graph).

Definition 1.4.12 (Directed Graph).

Definition 1.4.13 (Graph Distance).

Definition 1.4.14 (Graph Root).

Definition 1.4.15 (Graph Square).

Definition 1.4.16 (Adjacency Matrix).

1.4.3 Mathematical Optimization

Definition 1.4.17 (Integer Program).

Definition 1.4.18 (Linear Program).

Let the *graph root* $H = (V, E_H)$ be a finite, simple, undirected graph, where V is the vertex set with $|V| = n$, and $E_H \subseteq \{\{u, v\} \mid u, v \in V, u \neq v\}$ is the edge set. Denote by $d_H(u, v)$ the *graph distance* defined as the number of edges of the shortest path between vertices u and v in H . If no such path exists, $d_H(u, v) = \infty$.

For vertices $u, v \in V$, the *graph distance* $d_H(u, v)$ is the length of a shortest path between u and v in H . If no such path exists, then $d_H(u, v) = \infty$.

The *square* of the graph H , denoted by $H^2 = (V, E_{H^2})$ is the graph on the same vertex set with edge set

$$E_{H^2} = \{uv \mid u \neq v, 1 \leq d_H(u, v) \leq 2\}. \quad (1.1)$$

That is, two distinct vertices are adjacent in H^2 if and only if they are connected by a path of length one or two in H . This is the standard definition of the square of a graph.

Using an alternative construction, let the *graph square* $G = (V, E_G)$ be an undirected graph defined on the same vertex set V . Let $A_H \in \{0, 1\}^{n \times n}$ denote the adjacency matrix of H , where

$$(A_H)_{ij} = \begin{cases} 1, & \text{if } ij \in E_H, \\ 0, & \text{otherwise,} \end{cases}$$

and let $D_H \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times n}$ denote the degree matrix of H , where

$$(D_H)_{ij} = \begin{cases} \deg_H(i), & \text{if } i = j, \\ 0, & \text{otherwise.} \end{cases}$$

Let $\mathbb{1}_{\geq 1} : \mathbb{R}^{n \times n} \rightarrow \{0, 1\}^{n \times n}$ denote the entrywise *indicator function*, defined by

$$\mathbb{1}_{\geq 1}(M)_{ij} = \begin{cases} 1, & \text{if } M_{ij} \geq 1, \\ 0, & \text{otherwise.} \end{cases}$$

Define the adjacency matrix of G using the adjacency and degree matrices of H

$$A_G = \mathbb{1}_{\geq 1}((A_H)^2 - D_H + A_H). \quad (1.2)$$

Chapter 2

Algorithmic Approaches

In this chapter we explore different methodologies that have been used to show certain properties of the graph root and the graph square. For many restricted cases which are NP, a polynomial time reduction is given and in cases which are polynomial, a polynomial time algorithm is given.

2.1 Polynomial Time Algorithm

Ross and Harary give an algorithm for constructing a tree T when given its square graph $G = T^2$ using the following characterization.

- If $G = K_p$ is complete, then T must be a tree of depth 1 (result of Lemma 1)
- If $G \neq K_p$
 - (i) Every vertex of G forms a clique with its neighbours and G is connected (result of Lemma 2)
 - (ii) If two cliques intersect at only one point v then there is a third clique with which they share v and exactly one other point (result of Lemma 3 and Lemma 5)
 - (iii) A clique $C(v)$ in G corresponding to v in T contains exactly as many points in multiple cliques as the number of cliques which include v (result of Lemma 3 and Lemma 4)
 - (iv) Every pair of cliques intersect at at most two points (result of Lemma 5)
 - (v) The number of pairs of cliques that meet at two points is one less than the number of cliques (result of cliques formed from non-leaf nodes forming a tree structure)

Lemma 1

G is complete iff T has depth 1.

Proof. ($\leftarrow$) Let T be a tree with depth 1, hence all vertices in T are at most 2-distance away from any other vertex since the root is a non-leaf vertex adjacent to all vertices in $T \implies G = T^2$ is complete since edges exist between all vertices

($\rightarrow$) Let $G = T^2$ be complete, then all vertices must have distance at most two in T and T has depth at most 2. Since T is a tree, there are no cycles and hence there cannot be depth 2 since this would lead to a path of length 3 from the vertex in depth 2 to an alternate vertex in depth 1. Hence T has exactly depth 1. $\square$

Lemma 2

Every vertex of G forms a clique with its neighbours and G is connected

Proof. For a vertex $v \in T$, its neighbours in T are all adjacent edge in G by construction hence $\{v\} \cup \Gamma(v)$ is a clique in G . $T \subseteq G$ and since T is a tree which is connected, G must also be connected. $\square$

Lemma 3

Every maximal clique of G corresponds to a closed neighbourhood of a non-leaf vertex and every closed neighbourhood of a non-leaf vertex in T form a clique in G

Proof. A set of leaves in T cannot form a clique in G without having at least one non-leaf since the distance between every leaf is at least greater than 2 unless they share a common neighbour.

Consider a non-leaf vertex $v \in T$, since all vertices in neighbourhood $\Gamma(v)$ have distance at most 2 in G , they will form a clique in G . This clique is maximal since all neighbours of v are already part of the clique and no additional vertex can be added. $\square$

Lemma 4

If G has more than one maximal clique, then vertex v is in exactly one maximal clique in G iff v is a leaf in T

Proof. ($\leftarrow$) Suppose vertices v, w to be in two cliques, there must be a neighbour $x \in \Gamma(v)$ that is not adjacent to w . If x is not a leaf in T , will form a third clique in G and being 2-distance away from w will also be in the clique formed from w . Hence only if this adjacent vertex is a leaf will it be in only one clique G .

($\rightarrow$) Suppose v is a leaf in T whereby v has exactly one neighbour w with is a non-leaf. The only maximal clique in G that includes v must also include w and the neighbourhood $\Gamma(w)$. Since v has no other neighbours it cannot appear in any other clique and hence is in exactly one clique. $\square$

Lemma 5

Two non-leaves of T are adjacent in T iff their neighbourhoods are cliques of G that intersect in exactly two points

Proof. ($\leftarrow$) Supposes cliques in G correspond to the neighbourhoods of two non-leaf neighbours v, w which intersect at exactly v, w . Then v, w must be adjacent, otherwise if they were instead 2-distance away then they would share a common neighbour u which is also in both cliques.

($\rightarrow$) Let v, w be adjacent vertices that are non-leaves in T . Both will form cliques in G and be in each clique since they are neighbours. Assume to the contrary that $\exists$ vertex k also in both cliques. k must be adjacent to both v, w in T but this creates a cycle since there is now two different paths between v, w . Hence v, w are the only two vertices that intersect in the two clique neighbourhoods. $\square$

Lemma 6

G is a connected graph where the removal of any edge does not result in a disconnected graph

Proof. By construction $\exists$ two paths between every pair of vertices $v, w \in G$ where one of the vertices v must be non-leaf. Remove the existing vw edge in $T \subset G$. There still exists a path by taking the 2-distance edge to the neighbour u of v and then going from u to w (vu, uw), hence the graph G is still connected. $\square$

Combining this gives the following

Algorithm

-
- 1: **Input:** A graph G
 - 2: **Output:** A tree T where $G = T^2$
 - Step 1**
 - 3: **if** $G = K_p$ is complete **then**
 - 4: **Return** tree T with depth 1 where root can be any vertex
 - 5: **else**
 - 6: **Continue**
 - 7: **end if**
 - Step 2**
 - 8: Identify all maximal cliques $C_1, \dots, C_n$ of G using an algorithm such as Bron–Kerbosch where $n > 1$ using characterization (i)
 - Step 3**
 - 9: Let $b_1, \dots, b_n$ be multicliqual points corresponding to $C_1, \dots, C_n$ formed from characterization (iii)
 - 10: Construct a graph S with vertex set $\{b_1, \dots, b_n\}$
 - 11: **for** each pair (C_i, C_j) satisfying $|C_i \cap C_j| = 2$ **do**
 - 12: Add edge between b_i and b_j in S
 - 13: **end for**
 - 14: By characterization (v), S is a tree
 - Step 4**
 - 15: **for** each clique C_i **do**
 - 16: Let n_i be the number of unicliqual points in C_i
 - 17: Attach n_i leaf nodes to b_i in S
 - 18: **end for**
 - 19: The resulting tree T has the same number of nodes as G and satisfies $T^2 = G$
-

2.2 NP-Completeness Proofs**2.3 Integer Program Foundation**

Let known constants $g_{ij} \in \{0, 1\}$ come from the adjacency matrix of the square A_G and let $M \in \mathbb{Z}_{>0}$ be a sufficiently large constant. The variables in the program are x_{ij}, y_{ikj}, z_{ij} where x_{ij} form the

ij -th entry of the adjacency matrix of the root A_H .

2.3.1 Integer Program Formulation

Variables:

$$x_{ij} \in \mathbb{Z}_{\geq 0}, \quad \forall i, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.1)$$

$$y_{ikj} \in \mathbb{Z}_{\geq 0}, \quad \forall i, k, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.2)$$

$$z_{ij} \in \mathbb{Z}_{\geq 0}, \quad \forall i, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}. \quad (2.3)$$

Constraints:

$$(1) \text{ Indicator argument: } z_{ii} = \sum_{k=1}^n y_{iki} - \sum_{k=1}^n x_{ik}, \forall i \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.4)$$

$$z_{ij} = \sum_{k=1}^n y_{ikj} + x_{ij}, \quad \forall i \neq j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.5)$$

$$(2) \text{ Indicator function: } z_{ij} \leq M g_{ij}, \quad \forall i, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.6)$$

$$z_{ij} \geq g_{ij}, \quad \forall i, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.7)$$

$$(3) \text{ Product: } y_{ikj} \leq x_{ik}, \quad \forall i, k, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.8)$$

$$y_{ikj} \leq x_{kj}, \quad \forall i, k, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.9)$$

$$y_{ikj} \geq x_{ik} + x_{kj} - 1, \quad \forall i, k, j \in \{1, \dots, n\} \quad (2.10)$$

$$(4) \text{ Upper Bound: } x_{ij} \leq 1, \quad \forall i, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.11)$$

$$y_{ikj} \leq 1, \quad \forall i, k, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.12)$$

$$(5) \text{ Symmetry: } x_{ij} = x_{ji}, \quad \forall i, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.13)$$

$$(6) \text{ Diagonal: } x_{ii} = 0, \quad \forall i \in \{1, \dots, n\}. \quad (2.14)$$

2.3.2 Validity

Define the edge set of H^2 as

$$E_{H^2} = \{uv \mid u \neq v, 1 \leq d_H(u, v) \leq 2\}. \quad (2.15)$$

Then for

$$A_G = \mathbb{1}_{\geq 1}((A_H)^2 - D_H + A_H). \quad (2.16)$$

Lemma 1. *The graph G defined by (2.16) is equivalent to the graph square H^2 defined in (2.15)*

$$ij \in E_{H^2} \text{ if and only if } 1 \leq d_H(i, j) \leq 2. \quad (2.17)$$

Proof. For $i \neq j$, since D_H is diagonal, have $(D_H)_{ij} = 0$ and hence

$$((A_H)^2 - D_H + A_H)_{ij} = (A_H)_{ij}^2 + (A_H)_{ij}.$$

Suppose $ij \in E_G$ such that $(A_H)_{ij}^2 + (A_H)_{ij} \geq 1$. This implies that at least one of $(A_H)_{ij} = 1$ or $(A_H)_{ij}^2 \geq 1$ must be true. If $(A_H)_{ij} = 1$, then $d_H(i, j) = 1$. If $(A_H)_{ij}^2 \geq 1$, then there exists a vertex k such that $ik, kj \in E_H$, and hence $d_H(i, j) \leq 2$. Therefore $1 \leq d_H(i, j) \leq 2$, and thus $ij \in E_{H^2}$.

Suppose $ij \in E_{H^2}$ such that $1 \leq d_H(i, j) \leq 2$. D_H is diagonal such that $(D_H)_{ij} = 0$. If $d_H(i, j) = 1$, then $(A_H)_{ij} = 1$. If $d_H(i, j) = 2$, then there exists a vertex k such that $ik, kj \in E_H$, and hence $(A_H)_{ij}^2 \geq 1$. In either case, $(A_H)_{ij}^2 + (A_H)_{ij} \geq 1$, so $(A_G)_{ij} = 1$, and hence $ij \in E_G$.

For $i = j$, since all graphs are simple, have $(E)_{ii} = 0$, $(A)_{ii} = 0$ and hence

$$((A_H)^2 - D_H + A_H)_{ii} = (A_H)_{ii}^2 - (D_H)_{ii}.$$

$(A_H)_{ii}^2 - (D_H)_{ii} = 0$ is always true since the degree matrix of H always has diagonal values $(D_H)_{ii} = \sum_k x_{ik}$ and each edge from vertex i to its neighbour in H will always create a loop

to itself in the square such that $(A_H)_{ii}^2 = \sum_{k=1} x_{ik} x_{ki} = \sum_{k=1} x_{ik}^2$ by the symmetry of adjacency matrix A_H . Since $x_{ik} \in \{0, 1\}$, the square of the boolean is identical to the boolean x_{ik} such that $(A_H)_{ii}^2 = \sum_k x_{ik} = (D_H)_{ii}$ and $(A_G)_{ii} = \mathbb{1}_{\geq 1}((A_H)^2 - D_H + A_H)$ as required.

Combining both gives that $E_G = E_{H^2}$, and so $G = H^2$. $\square$

Theorem 1. *Let G be a graph and consider the integer program whose variables $x_{ij} \in \{0, 1\}$ encode a graph H with adjacency matrix $A_H = (x_{ij})$. Then G has a square root H if and only if the integer program has a feasible solution x such that the corresponding graph H satisfies $H^2 = G$.*

Proof. Suppose G has a square root H and let A_H be the adjacency matrix of H . $x_{ij} = (A_H)_{ij}$. Construct the variables x_{ij}, y_{ikj}, z_{ij} and the constant g_{ij} as such

- i) Let $x_{ij} = 1$ if $ij \in E_H$ and $= 0$ otherwise.
- ii) Let $y_{ikj} = x_{ik}x_{kj}$ for all i, k, j .
- iii) Let $z_{ij} = \sum_{k=1}^n y_{ikj} + x_{ij}$ for all i, j .
- iv) Let $z_{ii} = \sum_{k=1}^n y_{iki} - \sum_{k=1}^n x_{ik} = \sum_{k=1}^n x_{ik}^2 - \sum_{k=1}^n x_{ik} = 0$ since $x_{ij} \in \{0, 1\} \implies x_{ik}^2 = x_{ik}$.
- v) Let $g_{ij} = 1$ if $ij \in E_G$ and $= 0$ otherwise.

Verifying constraints of the integer program for the variables

- i) As $x_{ij} \in \{0, 1\} \implies y_{ikj} \in \{0, 1\}$, Equations (2.1)-(2.3) and Equations (2.11)-(2.12) are satisfied.
- ii) As H is a simple directed graph, its adjacency matrix is hallow and symmetric such that Equations (2.13) -(2.14) are satisfied.
- iii) As $y_{ikj} = x_{ik}x_{kj}$ and all variables are binary, Equations (2.8)- (2.10) are satisfied.
- iv) Equation (2.5) by definition is satisfied.
- v) As $z_{ii} = \sum_{k=1}^n x_{ik}x_{ki} - \sum_{k=1}^n x_{ik}$, Equation (2.4) is satisfied.

- vi) As $z_{ij} \geq 1$ if and only if $x_{ij} = 1$ or there exists k such that $x_{ik} = x_{kj} = 1$ and as $H^2 = G$, have $g_{ij} = 1$ if and only if $1 \leq d_H(i, j) \leq 2$. Thus $g_{ij} = 1$ if and only if $z_{ij} \geq 1$ so the indicator constraints Equations (2.6)-(2.7) hold.

All constraints of the integer program are satisfied by the constructed variables. Hence, the integer program is feasible.

Suppose the integer program on graph G has a feasible solution x , and let x_{ij} define a graph H by

$$ij \in E_H \text{ if and only if } x_{ij} = 1.$$

As x_{ij} satisfies the constraints of the integer program,

- i) Equation (2.1) and Equation (2.11) gives $x_{ij} \in \{0, 1\}$ for all i, j ,
- ii) Equation (2.13) and Equation (2.14) give $x_{ij} = x_{ji}$ and $x_{ii} = 0$,

such that x_{ij} defines a hollow, symmetric matrix with all elements being either 0 or 1 which is a valid adjacency matrix of a graph. Examining the auxiliary variables y_{ikj} and z_{ij} ,

- i) Equations (2.8)-(2.10) give the strict equality $y_{ikj} = x_{ik}x_{kj}$ for all i, j, k ,
- ii) Equation (2.5) gives $z_{ij} = \sum_{k=1}^n y_{ikj} + x_{ij} = \sum_{k=1}^n x_{ik}x_{kj} + x_{ij}$ for all $i \neq j$,
- iii) Equation (2.4) gives $z_{ii} = \sum_{k=1}^n y_{iki} + \sum_{n=1}^k x_{ik} = \sum_{k=1}^n x_{ik}x_{ki} - \sum_{n=1}^k x_{ik} = 0$ for all i since

$$\sum_{k=1}^n x_{ik}x_{ki} = \sum_{k=1}^n x_{ik}^2 = \sum_{k=1}^n x_{ik},$$

by symmetry and since $x_{ij} \in \{0, 1\}$.

The indicator constraints Equations (2.6)-(2.7) thus give for $i \neq j$

$$g_{ij} = 1 \text{ if and only if } \sum_{k=1}^n x_{ik}x_{kj} + x_{ij} \geq 1 \text{ and } g_{ij} = 0 \text{ if and only if } \sum_{k=1}^n x_{ik}x_{kj} + x_{ij} = 0.$$

Since $x_{ij} \in \{0, 1\}$, this is equivalent to

$$g_{ij} = 1 \text{ if and only if } (x_{ij} = 1) \vee (\text{there exists } k \text{ such that } x_{ik} = 1 \wedge x_{kj} = 1) \text{ and } g_{ij} = 0 \text{ if and only if } x_{ij} = 0.$$

By definition of H this means that $g_{ij} = 1$ if and only if $(ij \in E_H) \vee (\text{there exists } k \text{ such that } ik, kj \in E_H)$ which is equivalent to

$$g_{ij} = 1 \text{ if and only if } 1 \leq d_H(i, j) \leq 2.$$

Applying Lemma 1 thus gives $ij \in E_G$ if and only if $ij \in E_H^2$ such that $G = H^2$. $\square$

2.4 Linear Program Relaxation

2.4.1 Formulation

$$x_{ij} \in \mathbb{R}_{\geq 0}, \quad \forall i, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.18)$$

$$y_{ikj} \in \mathbb{R}_{\geq 0}, \quad \forall i, k, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.19)$$

$$z_{ij} \in \mathbb{R}_{\geq 0}, \quad \forall i, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.20)$$

Constraints:

$$(1) \text{ Indicator argument: } z_{ii} = \sum_{k=1}^n y_{iki} - \sum_{k=1}^n x_{ik}, \forall i \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.21)$$

$$z_{ij} = \sum_{k=1}^n y_{ikj} + x_{ij}, \quad \forall i \neq j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.22)$$

$$(2) \text{ Indicator function: } z_{ij} \leq M g_{ij}, \quad \forall i, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.23)$$

$$z_{ij} \geq g_{ij}, \quad \forall i, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.24)$$

$$(3) \text{ Product: } y_{ikj} \leq x_{ik}, \quad \forall i, k, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.25)$$

$$y_{ikj} \leq x_{kj}, \quad \forall i, k, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.26)$$

$$y_{ikj} \geq x_{ik} + x_{kj} - 1, \quad \forall i, k, j \in \{1, \dots, n\} \quad (2.27)$$

$$(4) \text{ Upper Bound: } x_{ij} \leq 1, \quad \forall i, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.28)$$

$$y_{ikj} \leq 1, \quad \forall i, k, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.29)$$

$$(5) \text{ Symmetry: } x_{ij} = x_{ji}, \quad \forall i, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.30)$$

$$(6) \text{ Diagonal: } x_{ii} = 0, \quad \forall i \in \{1, \dots, n\}. \quad (2.31)$$

2.5 Max Linear Program

2.5.1 Formulation

$$x_{ij} \in \mathbb{R}_{\geq 0}, \quad \forall i, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.32)$$

$$y_{ikj} \in \mathbb{R}_{\geq 0}, \quad \forall i, k, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.33)$$

$$z_{ij} \in \mathbb{R}_{\geq 0}, \quad \forall i, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.34)$$

Constraints:

$$(1) \text{ Indicator argument: } z_{ii} = \sum_{k=1}^n y_{iki} - \sum_{k=1}^n x_{ik}, \forall i \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.35)$$

$$z_{ij} = \sum_{k=1}^n y_{ikj} + x_{ij}, \quad \forall i \neq j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.36)$$

$$(2) \text{ Indicator function: } z_{ij} \leq M g_{ij}, \quad \forall i, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.37)$$

$$z_{ij} \geq g_{ij}, \quad \forall i, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.38)$$

$$(3) \text{ Product: } y_{ikj} \leq x_{ik}, \quad \forall i, k, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.39)$$

$$y_{ikj} \leq x_{kj}, \quad \forall i, k, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.40)$$

$$y_{ikj} \geq x_{ik} + x_{kj} - 1, \quad \forall i, k, j \in \{1, \dots, n\} \quad (2.41)$$

$$(4) \text{ Upper Bound: } x_{ij} \leq 1, \quad \forall i, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.42)$$

$$y_{ikj} \leq 1, \quad \forall i, k, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.43)$$

$$(5) \text{ Symmetry: } x_{ij} = x_{ji}, \quad \forall i, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.44)$$

$$(6) \text{ Diagonal: } x_{ii} = 0, \quad \forall i \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (2.45)$$

Objective Function:

$$\max \sum_{i=1}^n \sum_{j=1}^n x_{ij}. \quad (2.46)$$

Chapter 3

Square of A Tree using Linear Programming

3.1 Single Triangular Decomposition

3.1.1 Formulation

$$x_{ij} \in \mathbb{R}_{\geq 0}, \quad \forall i, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (3.1)$$

$$y_{ikj} \in \mathbb{R}_{\geq 0}, \quad \forall i, k, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (3.2)$$

$$z_{ij} \in \mathbb{R}_{\geq 0}, \quad \forall i, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (3.3)$$

Constraints:

$$(1) \text{ Indicator argument: } z_{ii} = \sum_{k=1}^n y_{iki} - \sum_{k=1}^n x_{ik}, \forall i \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (3.4)$$

$$z_{ij} = \sum_{k=1}^n y_{ikj} + x_{ij}, \quad \forall i \neq j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (3.5)$$

$$(2) \text{ Indicator function: } z_{ij} \leq M g_{ij}, \quad \forall i, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (3.6)$$

$$z_{ij} \geq g_{ij}, \quad \forall i, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (3.7)$$

$$(3) \text{ Product: } y_{ikj} \leq x_{ik}, \quad \forall i, k, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (3.8)$$

$$y_{ikj} \leq x_{kj}, \quad \forall i, k, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (3.9)$$

$$y_{ikj} \geq x_{ik} + x_{kj} - 1, \quad \forall i, k, j \in \{1, \dots, n\} \quad (3.10)$$

$$(4) \text{ Upper Bound: } x_{ij} \leq 1, \quad \forall i, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (3.11)$$

$$y_{ikj} \leq 1, \quad \forall i, k, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (3.12)$$

$$(5) \text{ Symmetry: } x_{ij} = x_{ji}, \quad \forall i, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (3.13)$$

$$(6) \text{ Diagonal: } x_{ii} = 0, \quad \forall i \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (3.14)$$

Objective Function:

$$\max \sum_{i=1}^n \sum_{j=1}^n x_{ij}. \quad (3.15)$$

3.1.2 Validity

Lemma 2. *Let s, u, v form a triangle in square G where s only lies in a single clique. If $\deg_G(u) = \deg_G(v) = d \geq 2$, then*

$$N_G(u) \setminus \{s\} = N_G(v) \setminus \{s\}.$$

That is, $N_G(u) \cup \{u\}$ and $N_G(v) \cup \{v\}$ induce the same clique structure in G .

Proof. Since s lies in a single clique in G , in any tree root H the vertex s must be a leaf, and exactly one of u or v is the internal vertex adjacent to the remainder of the graph. Assume without loss of generality that u is this internal vertex. Any vertex adjacent to v in G other than s must arise from a path of length at most two through u in H , since v has no other connections in the root besides u and s . Hence

$$N_G(v) \setminus \{s\} \subseteq N_G(u) \setminus \{s\}.$$

Since $\deg_G(u) = \deg_G(v)$, both neighbourhoods have equal cardinality $|N_G(v)| = |N_G(u)|$ such that via the equality criterion for finite sets

$$N_G(v) \setminus \{s\} = N_G(u) \setminus \{s\}.$$

Hence the vertices adjacent to u and v outside of s have identical adjacency structure in G , and therefore $N_G(u) \cup \{u\}$ and $N_G(v) \cup \{v\}$ induce the same clique structure. $\square$

Proposition 1. *Let s, u, v form a triangle in square G where s only lies in a single clique. If $\deg_G(u) = \deg_G(v) = d \geq 2$, then one can choose to assign $x_{su} = x_{uv} = 1$ in the tree root H without loss of generality.*

Proof. Since s lies in a single clique in G , in the root H , s must be a leaf with either u or v being the internal vertex adjacent to the remainder of the graph. Assume without loss of generality that u is the internal vertex.

By Lemma 2, $N_G(u) \setminus \{s\} = N_G(v) \setminus \{s\}$, such that u and v induce identical clique structure in G . Therefore exchanging the roles of u and v preserves the square graph G . Hence choosing u as the internal vertex and assigning

$$x_{su} = x_{uv} = 1,$$

does not alter feasibility, since the alternative choice obtained by exchanging u and v produces an isomorphic tree root with identical square graph. $\square$

Proposition 2. *Let s, u, v form a triangle in square G where s only lies in a single clique. The linear program with Equation (??) never returns a infeasible solution for squares with tree roots.*

Proof. $\square$

3.2 Tetrahedron Decomposition

3.2.1 Formulation

$$x_{ij} \in \mathbb{R}_{\geq 0}, \quad \forall i, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (3.16)$$

$$y_{ikj} \in \mathbb{R}_{\geq 0}, \quad \forall i, k, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (3.17)$$

$$z_{ij} \in \mathbb{R}_{\geq 0}, \quad \forall i, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (3.18)$$

Constraints:

$$(1) \text{ Indicator argument: } z_{ii} = \sum_{k=1}^n y_{iki} - \sum_{k=1}^n x_{ik}, \forall i \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (3.19)$$

$$z_{ij} = \sum_{k=1}^n y_{ikj} + x_{ij}, \quad \forall i \neq j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (3.20)$$

$$(2) \text{ Indicator function: } z_{ij} \leq M g_{ij}, \quad \forall i, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (3.21)$$

$$z_{ij} \geq g_{ij}, \quad \forall i, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (3.22)$$

$$(3) \text{ Product: } y_{ikj} \leq x_{ik}, \quad \forall i, k, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (3.23)$$

$$y_{ikj} \leq x_{kj}, \quad \forall i, k, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (3.24)$$

$$y_{ikj} \geq x_{ik} + x_{kj} - 1, \quad \forall i, k, j \in \{1, \dots, n\} \quad (3.25)$$

$$(4) \text{ Upper Bound: } x_{ij} \leq 1, \quad \forall i, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (3.26)$$

$$y_{ikj} \leq 1, \quad \forall i, k, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (3.27)$$

$$(5) \text{ Symmetry: } x_{ij} = x_{ji}, \quad \forall i, j \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (3.28)$$

$$(6) \text{ Diagonal: } x_{ii} = 0, \quad \forall i \in \{1, \dots, n\}, \quad (3.29)$$

Objective Function:

$$\max \sum_{i=1}^n \sum_{j=1}^n x_{ij}. \quad (3.30)$$

3.2.2 Validity

Lemma 3. *Let s_1, s_2, u, v form a 4-clique in square G . If $N_G(s_1) \setminus \{s_1, s_2, u, v\} = N_G(s_2) \setminus \{s_1, s_2, u, v\}$, then*

$$N_G(u) \setminus \{s_1, s_2\} = N_G(v) \setminus \{s_1, s_2\}.$$

That is, $N_G(u) \cup \{u\}$ and $N_G(v) \cup \{v\}$ induce the same clique structure in G .

Proof. Let $x \in N_G(v) \setminus \{s_1, s_2\}$ be a vertex adjacent to v in G such that there exists a path of length at most two between x and v in H . If x is adjacent to either s_1 or s_2 , then by the assumption

$$N_G(s_1) \setminus \{s_1, s_2, u, v\} = N_G(s_2) \setminus \{s_1, s_2, u, v\},$$

where the vertices s_1 and s_2 contribute identically outside the clique. Hence any external connection from the clique through v must also be realised through the same local structure containing u . Consequently x is also at distance at most two from u in H , and therefore

$$x \in N_G(u) \setminus \{s_1, s_2\},$$

which implies that $N_G(v) \setminus \{s_1, s_2\} \subseteq N_G(u) \setminus \{s_1, s_2\}$. By symmetry, interchanging the roles of u and v gives

$$N_G(u) \setminus \{s_1, s_2\} \subseteq N_G(v) \setminus \{s_1, s_2\}$$

and hence $N_G(u) \setminus \{s_1, s_2\} = N_G(v) \setminus \{s_1, s_2\}$. Therefore the vertices adjacent to u and v outside of $\{s_1, s_2\}$ have identical adjacency structure in G , and so $N_G(u) \cup \{u\}$ and $N_G(v) \cup \{v\}$ induce the same clique structure in G . $\square$

Proposition 3. *Let s_1, s_2, u, v form a 4-clique in square G . If $\deg_G(u) = \deg_G(v) = d \geq 3$, then one can choose to assign $x_{s_1u} = x_{s_2u} = x_{uv} = 1$ in the tree root H without loss of generality.*

Proof. $\square$

Proposition 4. *Let s_1, s_2, u, v form a 4-clique in square G . The linear program with Equation (??) never returns an infeasible solution for squares with tree roots.*

Proof. $\square$

Proposition 5. *Let H be a tree and let u be an internal vertex with leaf children $s_1, \dots, s_k$ and parent v . Fixing any two leaves together with their internal vertex and parent uniquely determines the remaining leaf children of u in the linear program.*

Proof. Since any tree may be rooted at an arbitrary vertex, assume without loss of generality that H is rooted. Let $s_1, \dots, s_k$ be leaf children adjacent to an internal vertex u , and let v be the parent of u . Consider any pair of leaves s_i, s_j , and suppose the internal branching vertex u together with its parent v have been fixed in the linear program. Now consider any remaining leaf s_ℓ adjacent to u . Since s_ℓ is a leaf in the root, its only neighbour in the tree is u . Furthermore, all leaf children of u have identical neighbourhood structure in the square graph outside of $\{u, v, s_i, s_j\}$.

Now consider any remaining leaf s_ℓ adjacent to u . Since every leaf adjacent to u lies at distance two from s_ℓ through u , and v lies at distance two through the path $s_\ell - u - v$, the neighbourhood of s_ℓ in the square graph is

$$N_G(s_\ell) = \{u, v, s_1, \dots, s_{\ell-1}, s_{\ell+1}, \dots, s_k\}.$$

Suppose for contradiction that s_ℓ is assigned to a vertex w with $w \neq u$. Since s_ℓ is a leaf in the rooted tree, its neighbourhood in the square graph is determined by the vertices at distance at most two from w . Since $w \neq u$, the set of vertices at distance at most two from s_ℓ differs from that induced through u , giving

$$N_G(s_\ell) \neq \{u, v, s_1, \dots, s_{\ell-1}, s_{\ell+1}, \dots, s_k\}.$$

Hence either additional adjacencies are introduced into the square graph or existing adjacencies are removed and the neighbourhood of s_ℓ in the resulting square graph differs from that of the original graph, contradicting feasibility of the linear program. Thus the only feasible assignment is for s_ℓ to be adjacent to the already identified internal vertex u , implying that fixing any two leaves together with their internal vertex and parent uniquely determines all remaining leaf children adjacent to u . $\square$

3.3 Tree Proof

Let x be an optimal solution to the linear relaxation defined by Equations (2.32)–(2.46). If $g_{ij} = 0$, then for every $k \in \{1, \dots, n\}$,

$$x_{ik} + x_{kj} = 1.$$

3.3.1 Integer Program

Lemma 4. *Consider the triangle with three vertices i, j and k where edges ik and kj are present and ij is absent in square G . Then for root G , the integer program defined by Equations (2.1)–(2.14) must satisfy*

$$x_{ik} + x_{kj} \leq 1.$$

Proof. As ij is absent in G , $g_{ij} = 0$ such that Equation (2.6) gives $z_{ij} \leq 0$ and Equation (2.7) gives $z_{ij} \geq 0$ such that $z_{ij} = 0$. Therefore Equation (2.5) gives

$$0 = \sum_{a=1}^n y_{iaj} + x_{ij} = \sum_{a=1}^n x_{ia}x_{aj} + x_{ij},$$

where the second equality follows from the product constraints Equations (2.8)–(2.10) together with the integrality of $x \in \{0, 1\}$ by Equation (2.1) and Equation (2.11). Since all variables are non-negative, 0 only holds when $x_{ij} = 0$ and all of $x_{ia}x_{aj} = 0$ and using the integrality of x , this means that at most one of x_{ia}, x_{aj} is equal to 1 and the other must be 0, which can be equivalently written as $x_{ia} + x_{aj} \leq 1$. Taking $a = k$ gives $x_{ik} + x_{kj} \leq 1$ as required. $\square$

3.3.2 Linear Program

Lemma 5. *Consider the triangle with three vertices i, j and k where edges ik and kj are present and ij is absent in square G . Then for root G , the linear program defined by Equations (2.18)–(2.31) must satisfy*

$$x_{ik} + x_{kj} \leq 1.$$

Proof. Since $g_{ij} = 0$, Equations (2.23)–(2.24) imply that $z_{ij} = 0$. Equation (2.22) therefore gives

$$0 = z_{ij} = \sum_{a=1}^n y_{iaj} + x_{ij}.$$

Since all variables are nonnegative by Equations (2.18)–(2.20), every term in the above sum must be equal to zero with $x_{ij} = 0$ and $y_{iaj} = 0$ for all a . Thus applying Equation (2.27) to $y_{ikj} = 0$ gives

$$0 = y_{ikj} \geq x_{ik} + x_{kj} - 1,$$

and hence $x_{ik} + x_{kj} \leq 1$ as required. $\square$

Lemma 6. *Every tree contains either a pendant or a leaf clique subgraph.*

Proof. Let T be a finite tree with $|V(T)| \geq 3$, and root T at an arbitrary vertex. Since T is finite, there exists a leaf s of maximal depth where its parent is u . Every child of u is a leaf, since if there was some child w of u that is not a leaf, then w would have a child and hence there would exist a vertex at depth strictly greater than that of s , contradicting the choice of s .

If u is not the root, let v denote its parent such that every neighbour of u other than v is a leaf.

If u has exactly one leaf neighbour s besides v (when u is not the root), then u has exactly two neighbours, namely s and v , hence $\deg_T(u) = 2$. Therefore the induced subgraph on

$$\{s, u, v\}$$

forms a pendant subgraph.

Otherwise u has at least two leaf neighbours s_1, s_2 . Choose another neighbour v of u distinct from s_1, s_2 ; if u is not the root, take its parent, while if u is the root choose any remaining neighbour. Then

$$\{s_1, s_2, v\} \subseteq N(u),$$

and $\deg_T(u) \geq 3$. Hence the induced subgraph on

$$\{s_1, s_2, u, v\}$$

forms a leaf clique subgraph. $\square$

Proof. Consider the smallest tree of size 3 that is unique up to isomorphism, $s - u - v$ which is clearly a pendant. In order to form a tree without a pendant or a leaf-clique, a vertex a must be added. However, without loss of generality adding a to the leaf v forms a new pendant $\{a, v, u\}$ whilst adding a to the internal vertex u forms a $\{$ $\square$

Chapter 4

Further Work

In this chapter we discuss additional work, further concepts and interesting ideas around specific structural properties that square intrinsically holds. Most of these have not been rigorously proven, with only sketch proofs given or intuitions given behind why they help improve results.

Further work would naturally be to improve many of these nascent ideas and develop formal proofs.

4.1 Symbolic Groups

Lemma 4 and its linear relaxation equivalent Lemma 5 give extremely strong structure into how the linear program operates. Using the maximization objective function Lemma 5, any two edges ij, jk which exist in G but ki , can be assigned the weights a, b respectively where $x_{ij} = a, x_{jk} = b$ and $a + b \leq 1$.

Under certain conditions, the relationship can hold with equality $a + b = 1$ which therefore gives a methodology for tackling scenarios where the maximal fractional objective function is greater than the optimal integer objective function corresponding to a valid square root. By continuously iterating Lemma 5 can eventually categorize and formulate equations for many of the weights on the various edges.

Consider this square graph on 6 vertices with three different roots

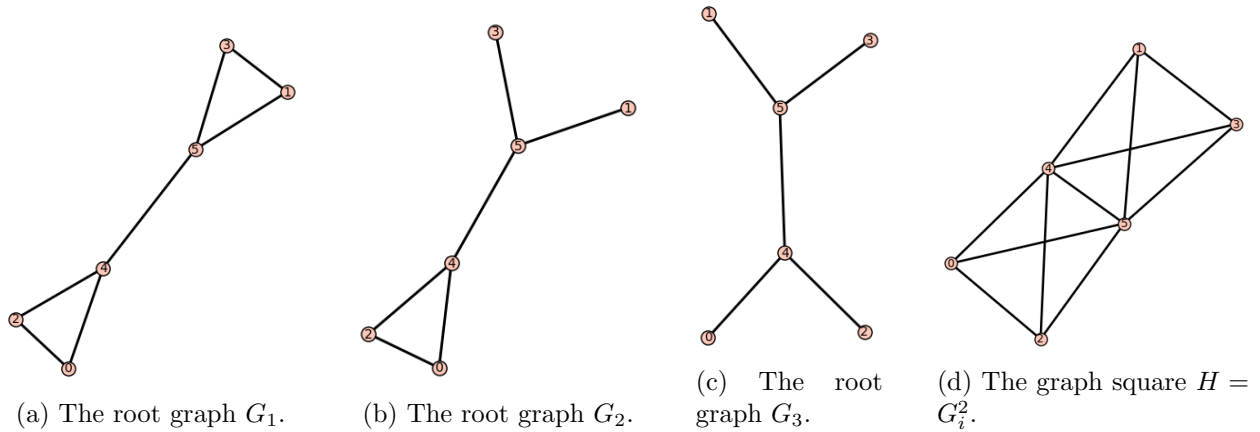


Figure 4.1: Three non-isomorphic square roots of the same six-vertex graph square.

G_1 is the unique maximal root. Assigning $a = x_{14}$ gives using Lemma (??) that $1 - a = x_{40}$

since 01 does not exist in G . The same applies such that $1 - a = x_{42}$ and $a = x_{43}$, whereby the existence of edges 13 and 02 prevent additional constraints being imposed upon a , it is internally consistent. By symmetry can likewise assign $b = x_{15} = x_{35}$ and $1 - b = x_{50} = x_{52}$. Setting $a = 0$ and $b = 1$ thus gives x_{40}

Consider this square graph on 6 vertices with only one unique root

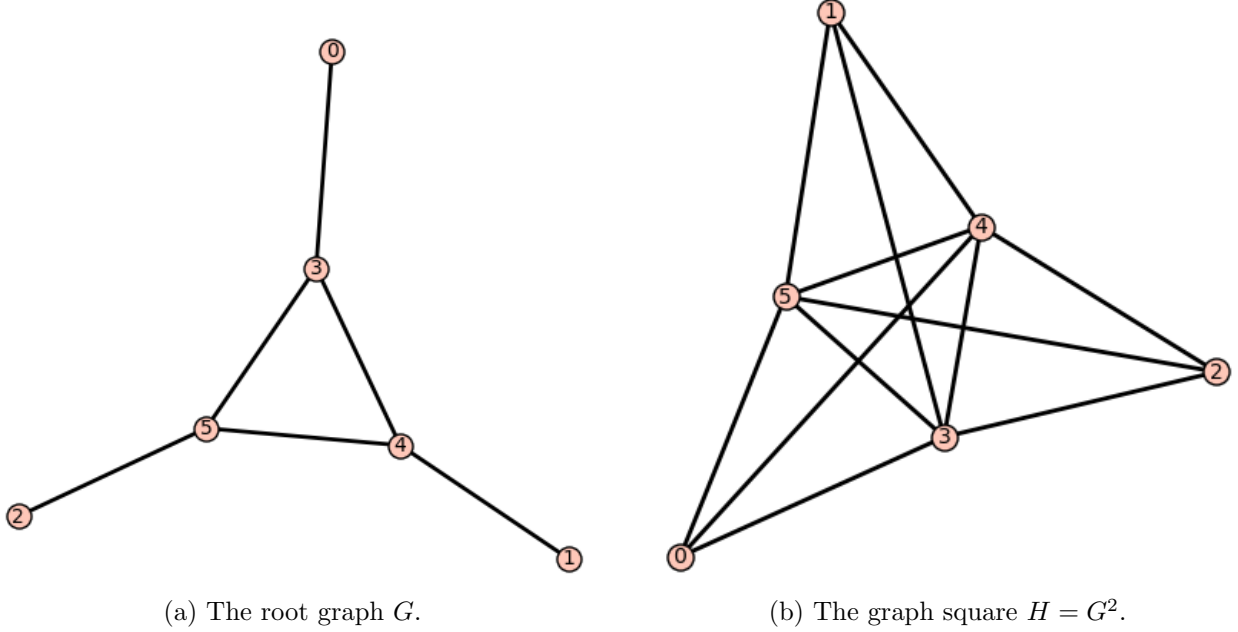


Figure 4.2: A six-vertex graph and its square.

Assigning $a = x_{03}$ gives using Lemma (??) that $x_{31} = 1 - a$ since 01 does not exist in G , and likewise with 12 does not exist in G have $x_{32} = a$. However with the absence of 02, must have $x_{03} + x_{32} \leq 1$ such that $a \leq \frac{1}{2}$. By symmetry this likewise holds for $b = x_{05} = x_{15}$, $1 - b = x_{52}$ and $c = x_{42} = x_{41}$, $1 - c = x_{40}$ giving $b, c \leq \frac{1}{2}$.

In this case, rather than maximizing the objective function and giving a fractional solution, setting $a = b = c = 0$ gives a valid integral solution.

Result Diagrams

Linear Program

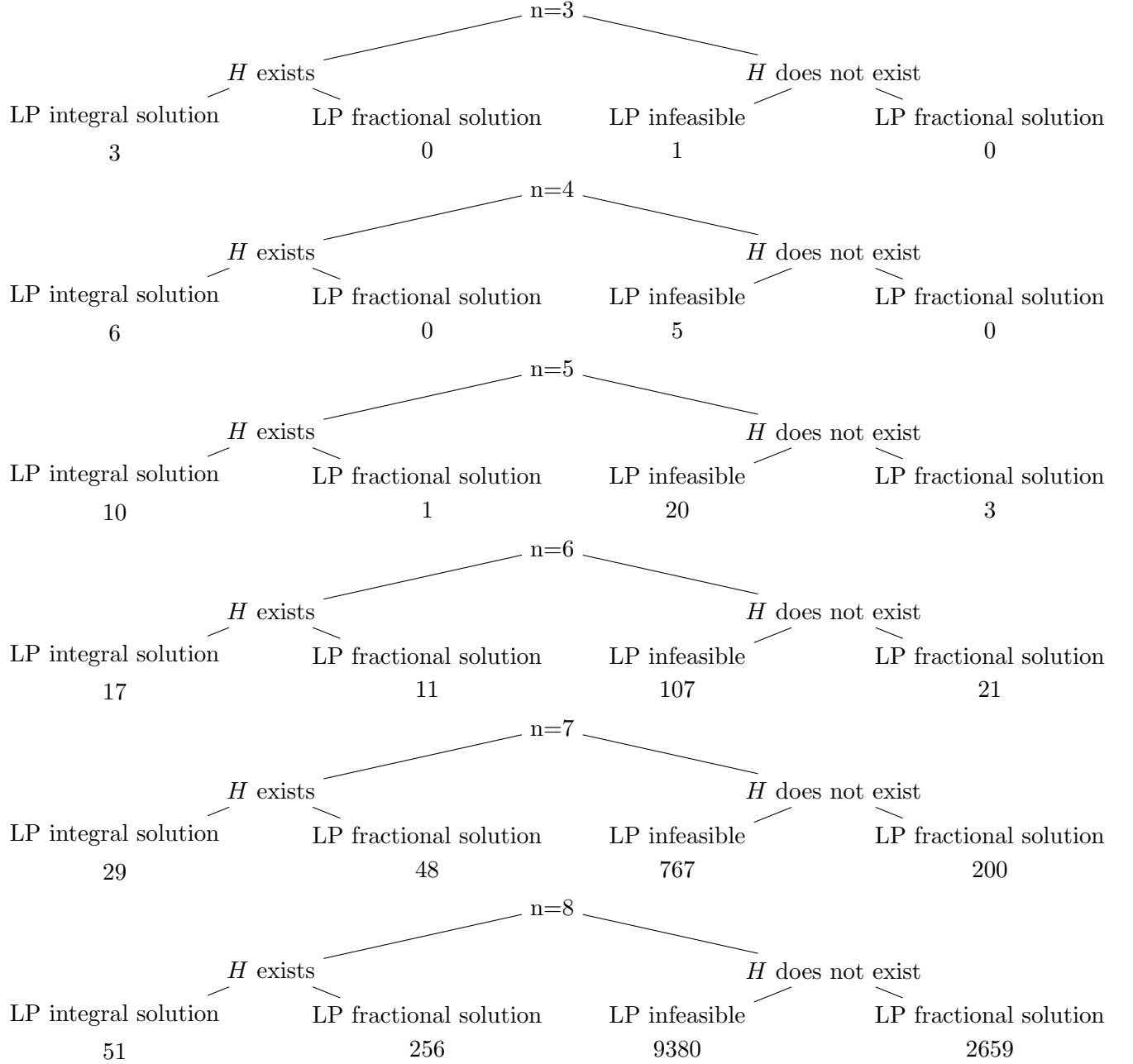


Figure 3: LP outcomes for different values of n on base linear program.

1

¹The total number of simple graphs on $n = 2, 3, 4, \dots$ unlabeled nodes is the sequence 2, 4, 11, 34, 156, 1044, 12346, $\dots$ given by A000088.

The IP integral solution sequence 2, 3, 6, 10, 17, 29, 51, $\dots$ is given by A285665.

The total number of graphs which are squares is the sequence 2, 3, 6, 11, 28, 77, 307, $\dots$ given by A382181.

Max Objective Function

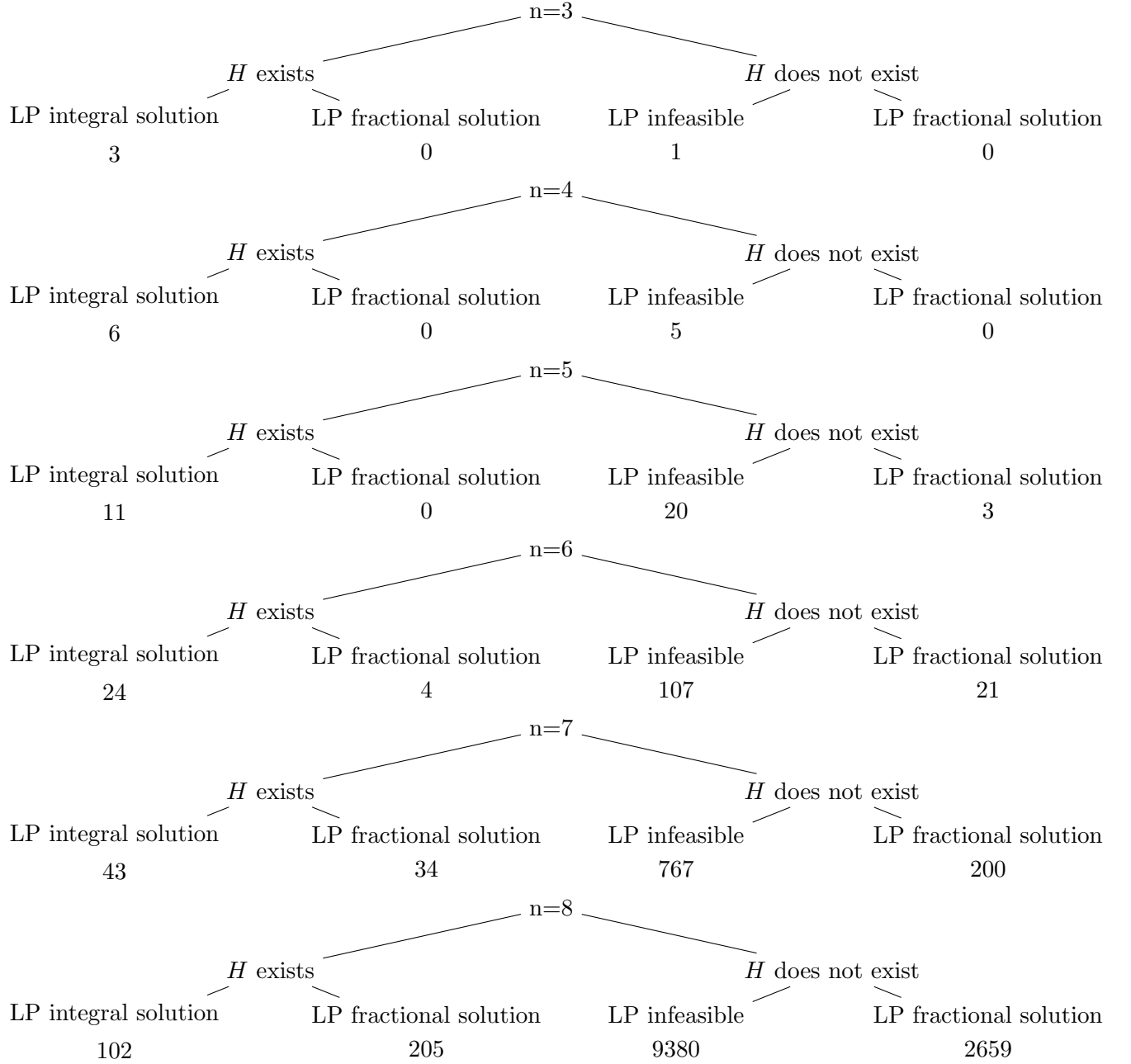


Figure 4: LP outcomes for different values of n on the linear program with max objective function.

2

²The LP integer solution sequence 3, 6, 11, 22, 42, 102, ... is very similar to the number of distinct characteristic polynomials of trees with n nodes - A226594.

Min Objective Function

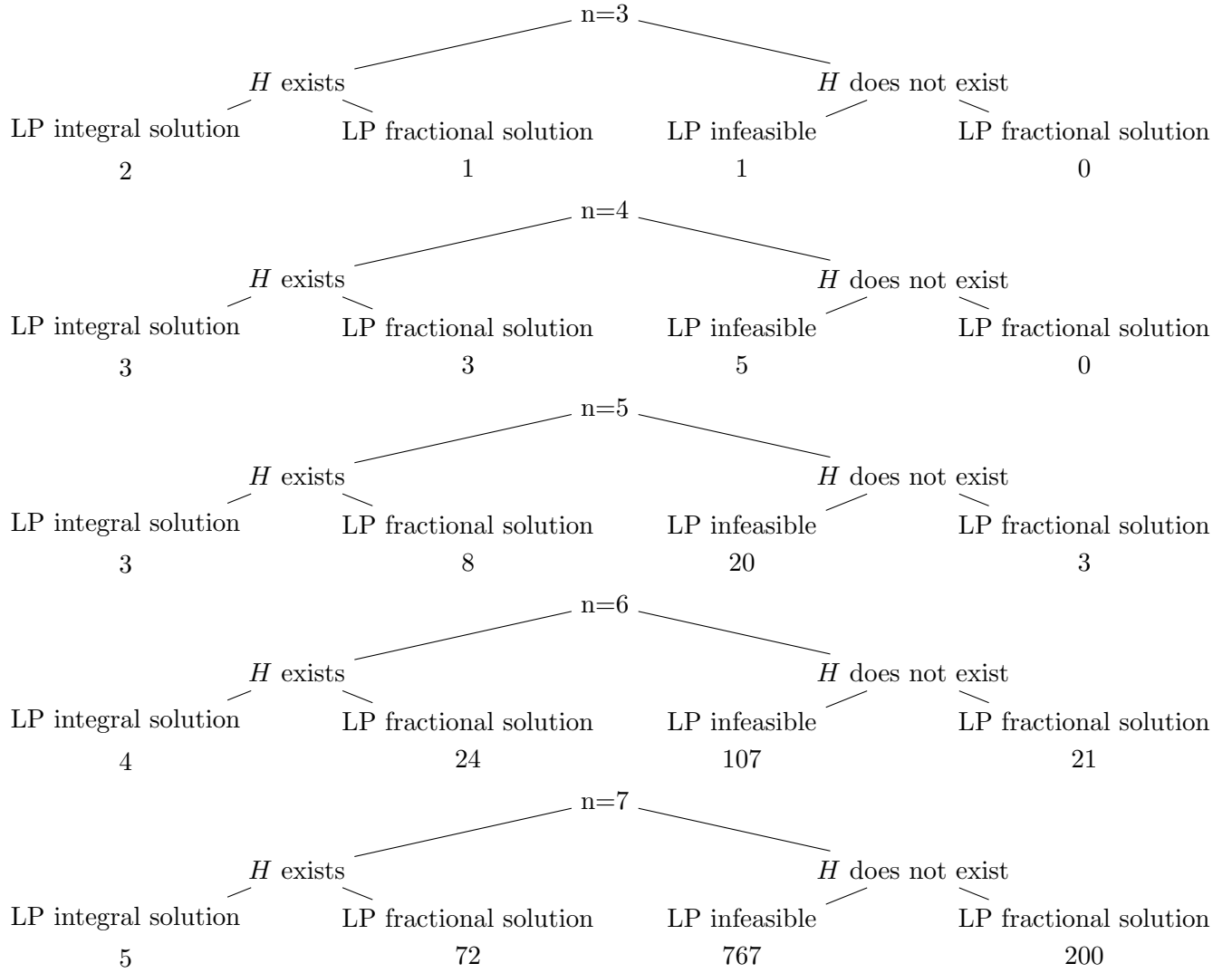


Figure 5: LP outcomes for different values of n on the linear program with min objective function.

Single Triangular Decomposition

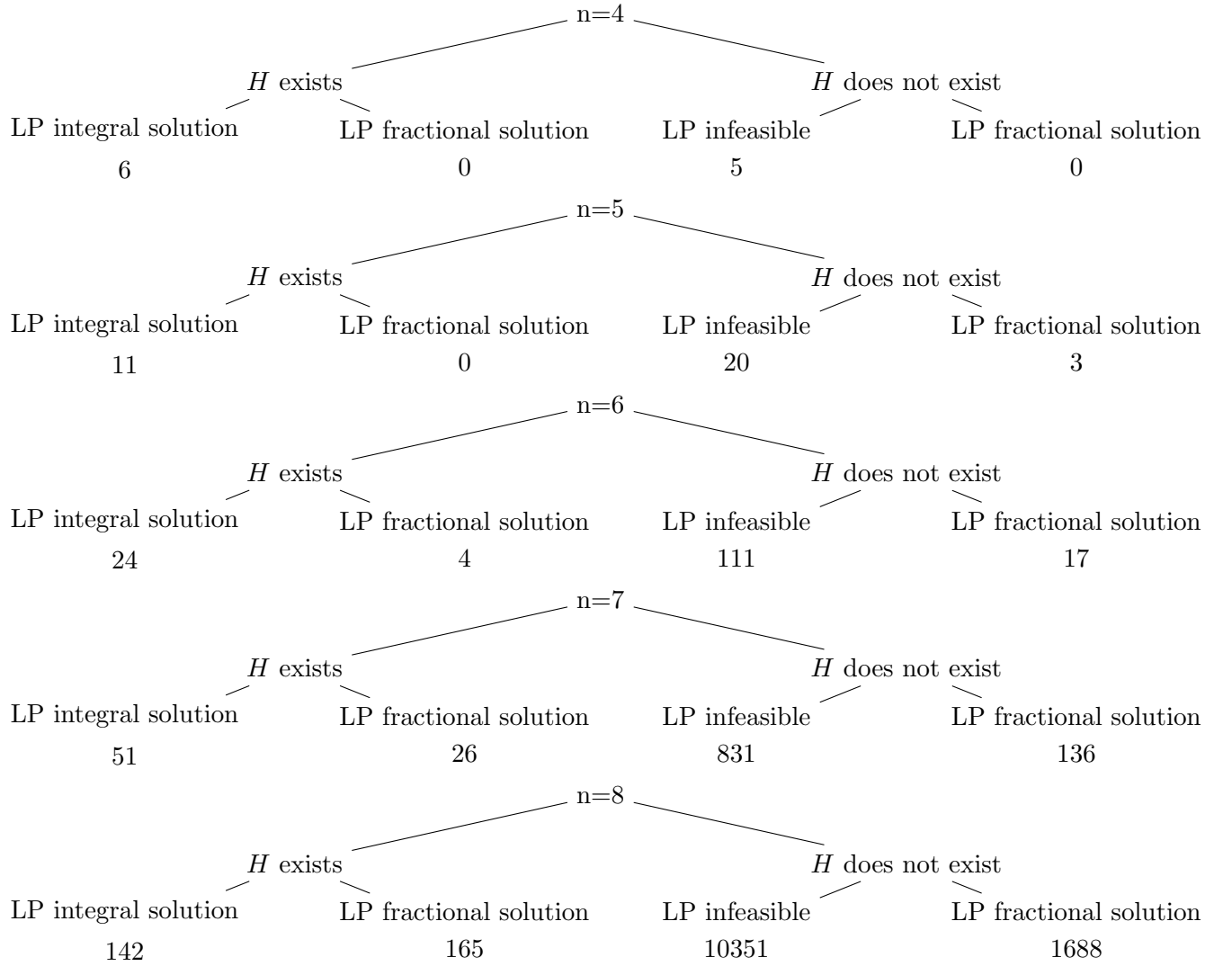


Figure 6: LP outcomes for different values of n on the linear program with max objective function and single triangular decomposition.

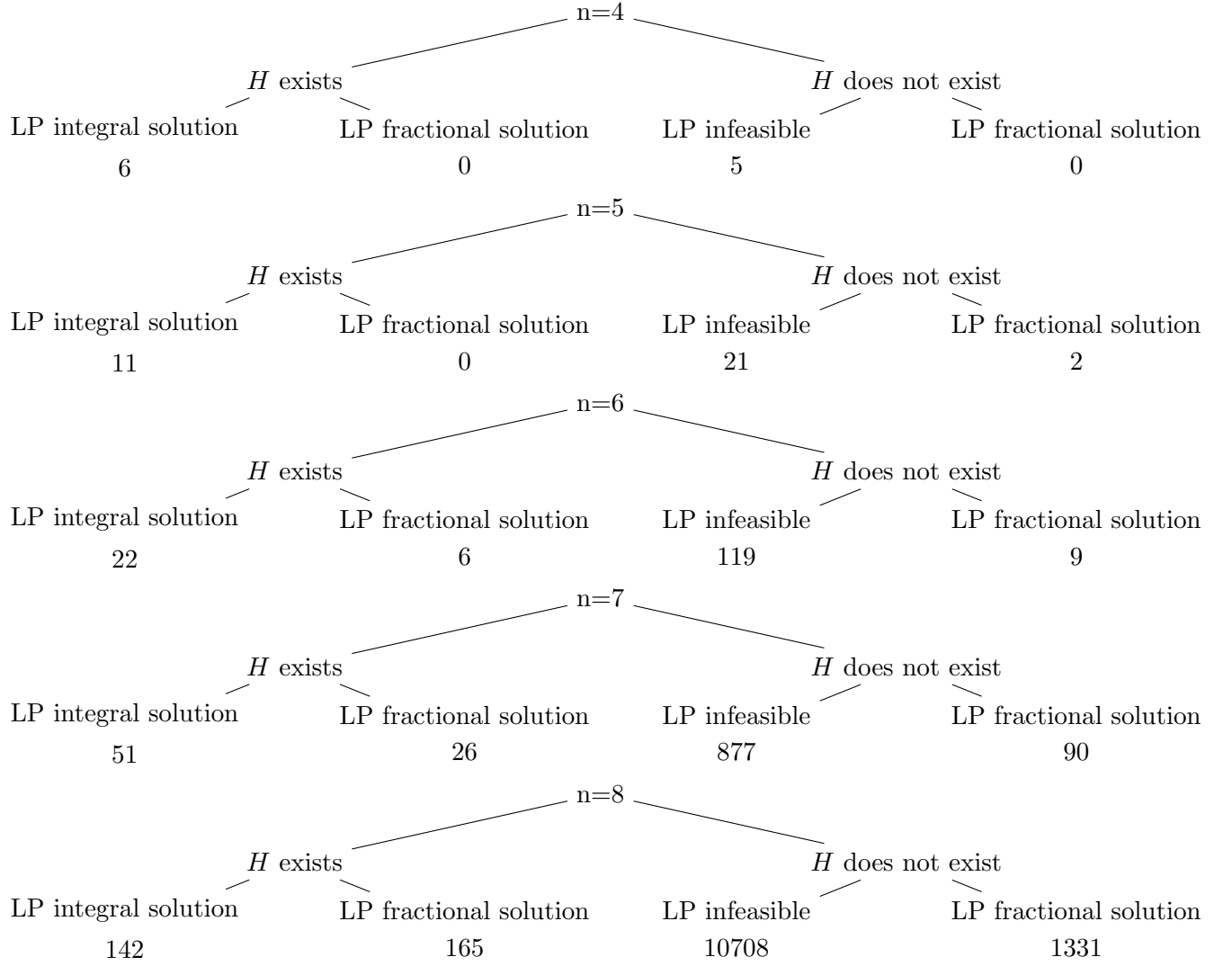


Figure 7: LP outcomes for different values of n on the linear program with max objective function and single triangular decomposition with recursion for tie-breaking.

Rounding

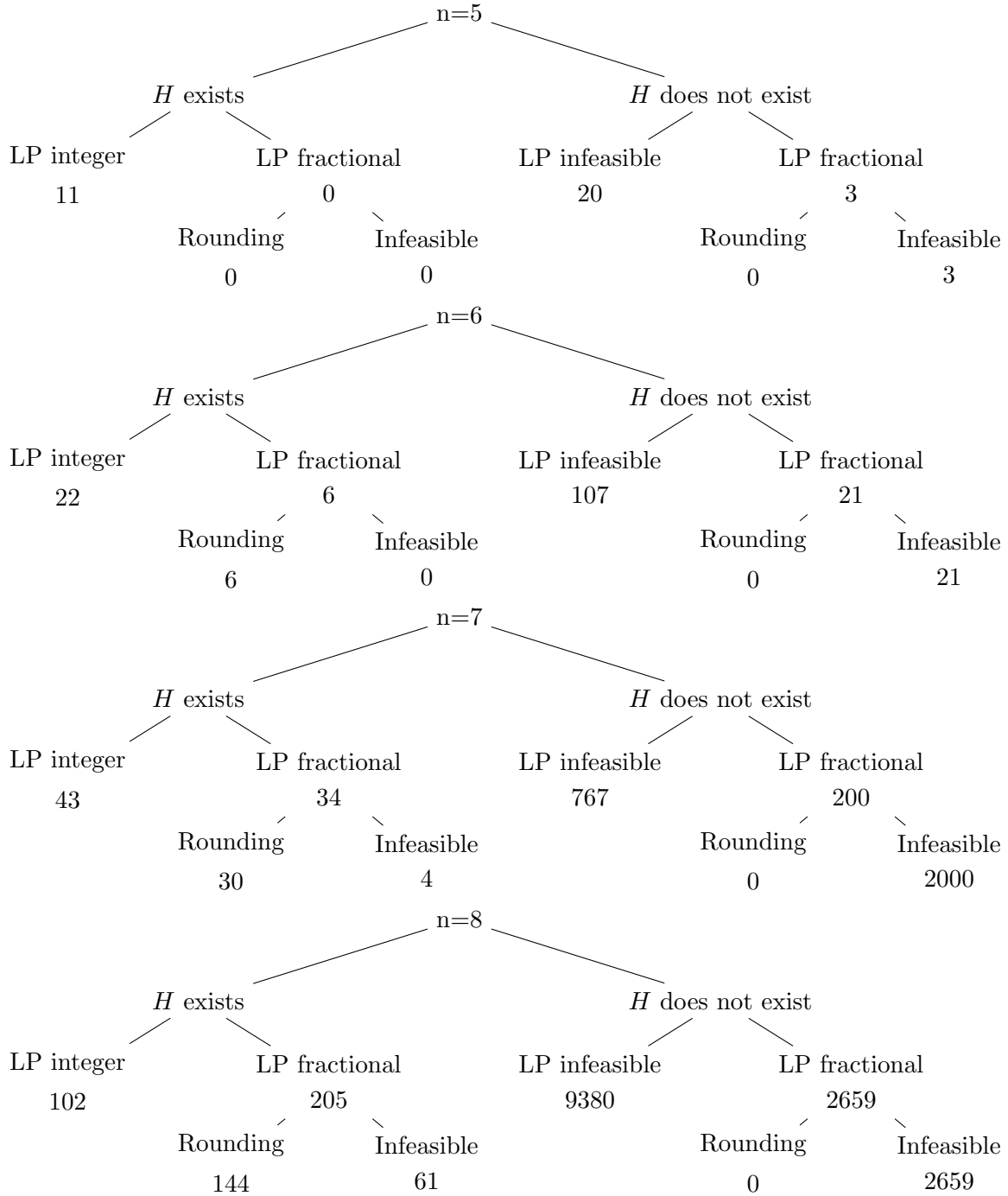


Figure 8: LP outcomes for different values of n on the linear program with max objective function and using rounding for fractional solutions.

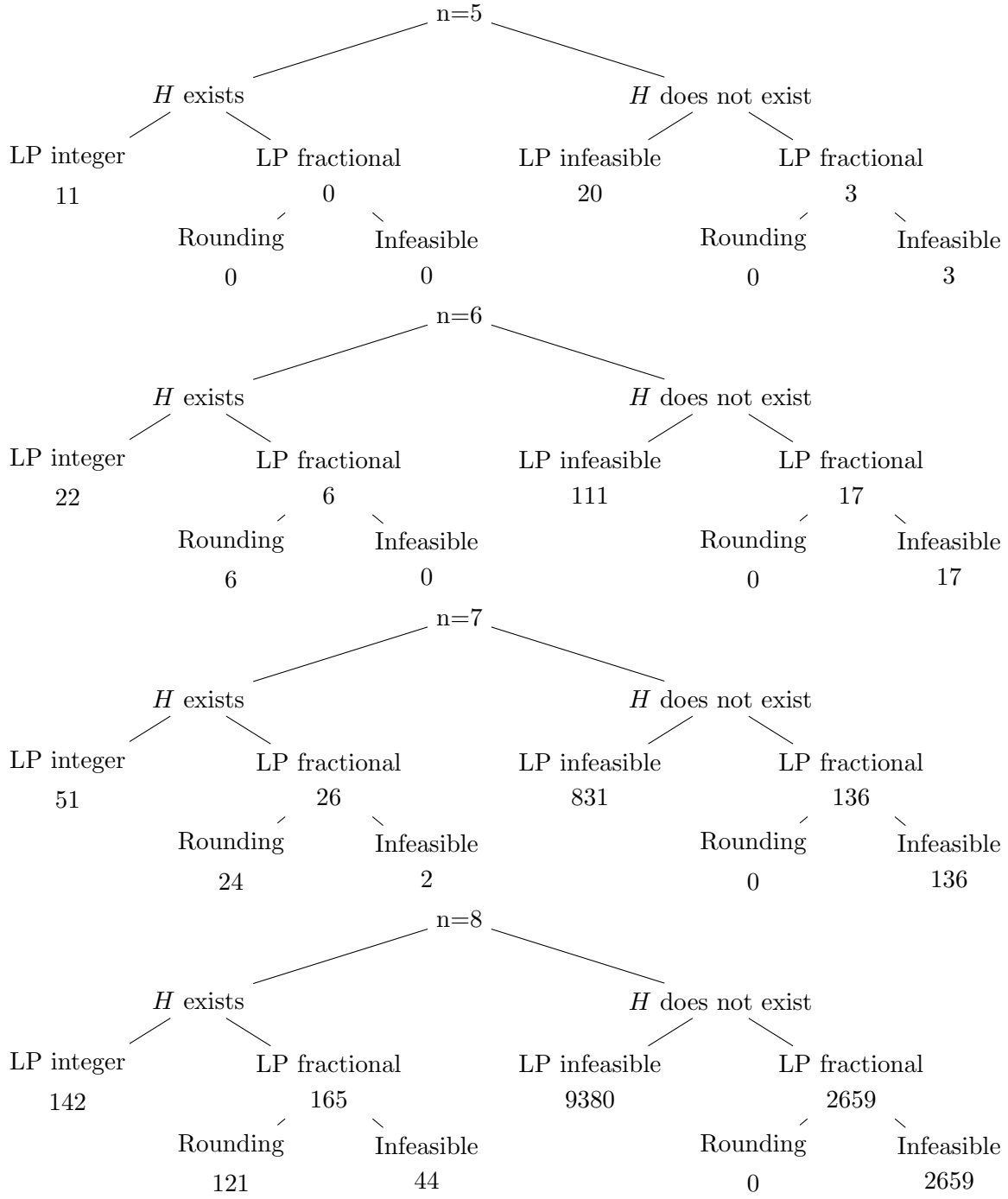


Figure 9: LP outcomes for different values of n on the linear program with max objective function, single triangular decomposition and using rounding for fractional solutions.

Dual Program

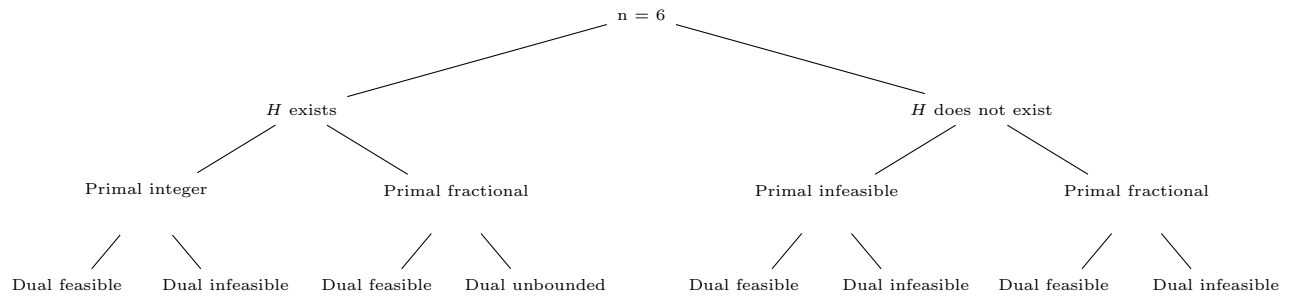


Figure 10: LP outcomes for different values of n on the dual linear program.

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